

SOFTWARE DESIGN (YAZILIM TASARIMI)

Week 5

Principles of (General) Design

- *Design emerges from a **need** to solve a problem.*
- *Design is a **creative** process to meet the need to solve the problem.*
- *Design has two phases:*
 - ***Inspiration** phase*
 - ***Expression** or **communication** phase.*
- *Design – as applied by nature – is a **bottom-up** process.*

Design: Inspiration Phase

- *The original (i.e., inspired) idea or thought is **disordered** or **chaotic**.*
- *It is **not expressible/communicable** as inspired.*
- *A powerful communication basis is required to **express** the inspired thought(s) in an organized manner.*

Design: Communication Phase

- *Idea or thought is disorganized as inspired.*
- *Words form a tool to communicate inspired thoughts.*
- *Words are components to express/communicate thoughts in a comprehensible manner.*
- *Designer is not confined in her inspirations; but restricted to the expressive power of the words she selects to communicate her thought(s).*
- *The quality of the communicated thought depends upon the **expressive power of the words** and the **potential of the designer to use words**.*

Conclusion from Last Page

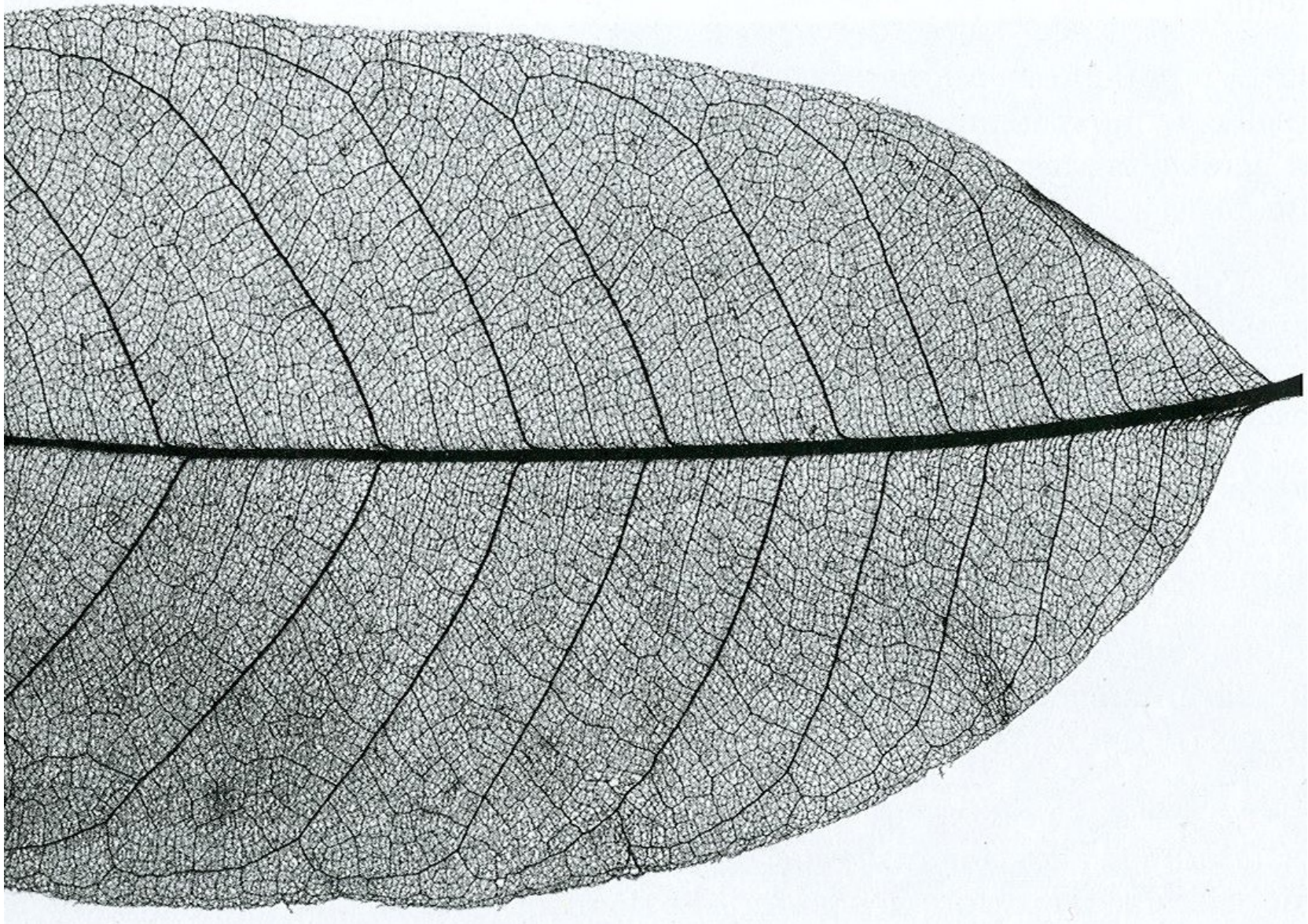
It is inevitable that the designer should have a well-established basis of knowledge on the set of communication tool(s) to use them to her best.

Nature's Tradition of Perfect Design

- *Nature's designs are fit since nature bases its designs upon the (to a significant extent unknown) internal reasons originating from an incredible level of balance in an enourmously diverse system of adaptable (evolving) organisms.*

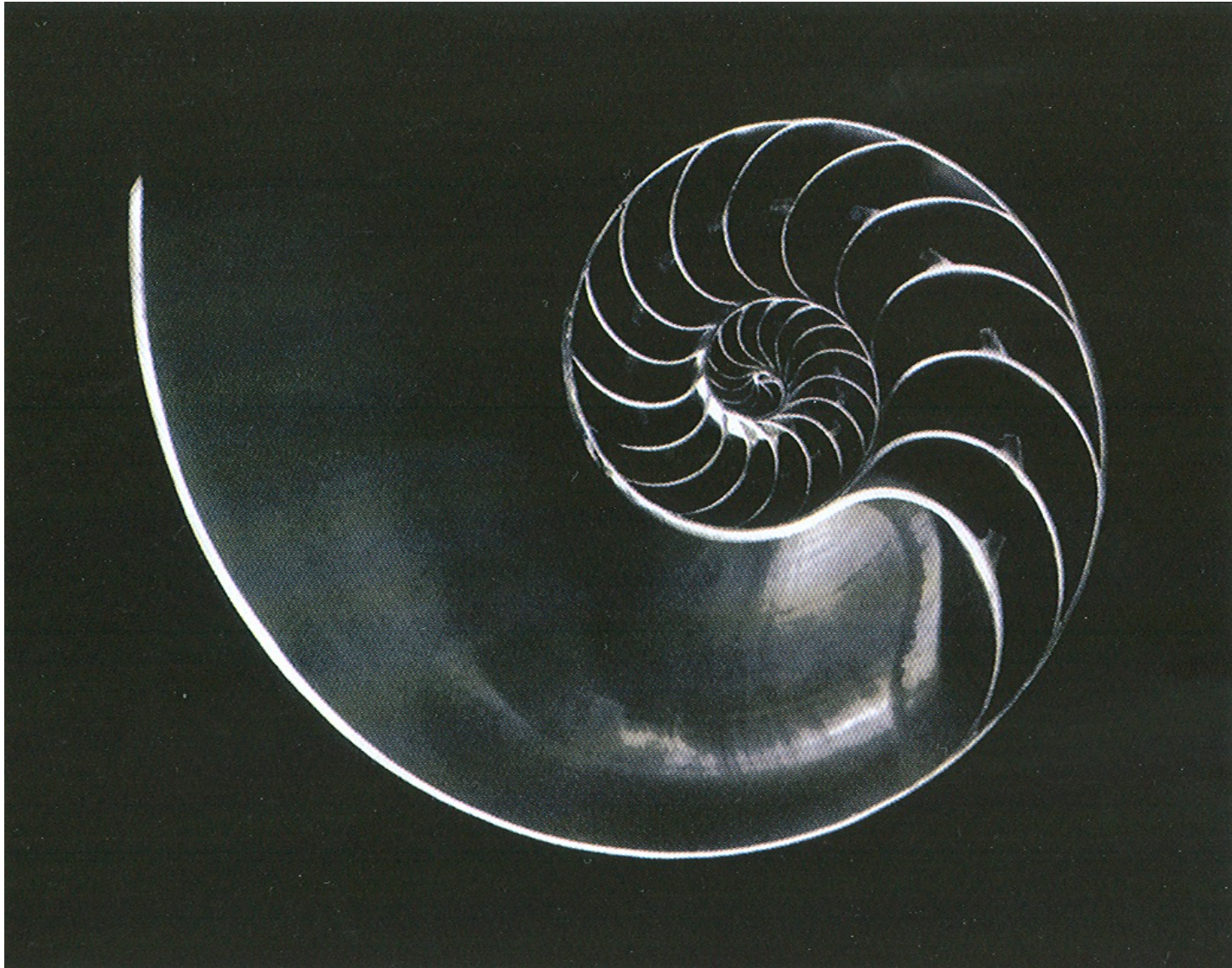
Nature's Multi-Levelled Approach to Design

- *Nature has evolved the tiger to do whatever it achieves to survive in its environment; through **evolution** nature has excelled its design (i.e., all aspects ranging from its most detailed **cellular** to most general **systemic** level) to progressively fit its environment.*
- *The same is valid for a leaf or a snail or us.*



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Nature Designs in a Bottom-up Fashion!

- *Nature's way of design ranging from the most detailed **cellular** to most general **systemic** level to provide an organism with all necessary and sufficient properties to survive its current environment is explained by its **bottom-up** approach to design along with its equipping these organisms with evolvability.*

Means of SW Design

- *UML*
- *Prototyping language (if required)*
- *Formal Language, corresponding IDE*
- *Environment: O/S, hardware, network.*
- *Graphic tools (if necessary)*
- *Others?*

SW Design: A Top-Down & Bottom-up Process

- *Designer is required to establish a sufficient background on all tools employed in any part of SW design.*
- *Establishing the required level of background on tools of use, the designer naturally follows a bottom-up approach to SW design.*
- *Time (tens of millions of years) that nature has for design is what SW designer does not. Hence, top-down approach is an option as a structuring approach to design in scarcity of time.*

Key Points

- Look for *solutions as simple as possible*;
- Nature's choice is also for as simple/optimal as can be. We appreciate this fact from our everyday experience on living organisms that they have the simplest necessary equipment for the given functionality;
- Remember! Among a number of solution alternatives to a problem, *the best one is the simplest one! (Occam's razor!)*;

Key Points

- *Learn all necessary means of SW design (i.e., those we have considered on page 11) to your best and expand your experience on using them;*
- *Just as one who possesses a large vocabulary and is talented (and/or educated) to use words meaningfully and correctly can more powerfully express her/his thoughts than an ordinary person, a SW engineer well equipped with/experienced on necessary tools is more likely to come up with better SW designs in general.*

Architectural Design

Architectural Design

- ... is the design stage for identifying
 - the *sub-systems* making up a system and
 - the framework for sub-system *control and communication*.

Architectural design ...2

- an *early stage* of the *system design*.
- a *link* between *specification* and *design*.
- ... involves *identifying major system components and their communications*.
- especially *cost-effective* for *large scale systems*.

Advantages of explicit architecture

- ***Stakeholder communication***
 - a *focus of discussion* by system stakeholders.
- ***System analysis***
 - Architectural design at an early stage requires system analysis. This in turn makes analysis possible of *whether the system can meet its non-functional requirements*.
- ***Large-scale reuse***
 - architecture reusable?

Architecture and system characteristics

- *Performance*
 - Localise critical operations and minimise communications. Use larger rather than finer components.
- *Security*
 - Use layered architecture with critical assets in the inner layers.
- *Safety*
 - Localise safety-critical features in a small number of sub-systems.
- *Availability*
 - Include redundant components and mechanisms for fault tolerance.
- *Maintainability*
 - Use finer, replaceable components.

Architectural conflicts

- A *high performance and maintainable* system?
- *Availability* (i.e., redundant data, failover (iş üstlenme) mechanisms) and *security* (i.e., layered architecture, access restrictions, additional layers for authentication) together?
- A *safe* (safety-related features means more communication) and *high performance* system?

Ex: Core trade-off between maintainability and performance

Maintainability Decision	Impact on Performance
<i>Modularization (e.g., microservices, layered architecture)</i>	<i>Increased communication overhead</i>
<i>Abstraction layers (interfaces & design patterns)</i>	<i>Additional indirection and runtime overhead</i>
<i>High-level framework use</i>	<i>Reduced low-level control, potential inefficiencies</i>
<i>Readable and generalized code</i>	<i>Less optimized, may sacrifice performance for clarity</i>
<i>Extensive logging and instrumentation</i>	<i>Increased I/O overhead and latency</i>

Ex: Core trade-off between maintainability and performance

Performance Decision	Impact on Maintainability
<i>Low level optimizations (e.g., memory tuning, bit-level operations)</i>	<i>Reduced readability and harder to understand code</i>
<i>Tight coupling/monolithic optimizations</i>	<i>Harder to modify, test and extend</i>
<i>Minimizing abstractions</i>	<i>Loss of modularity and reusability</i>
<i>Aggressive caching strategies</i>	<i>Added complexity in consistency and invalidation logic</i>

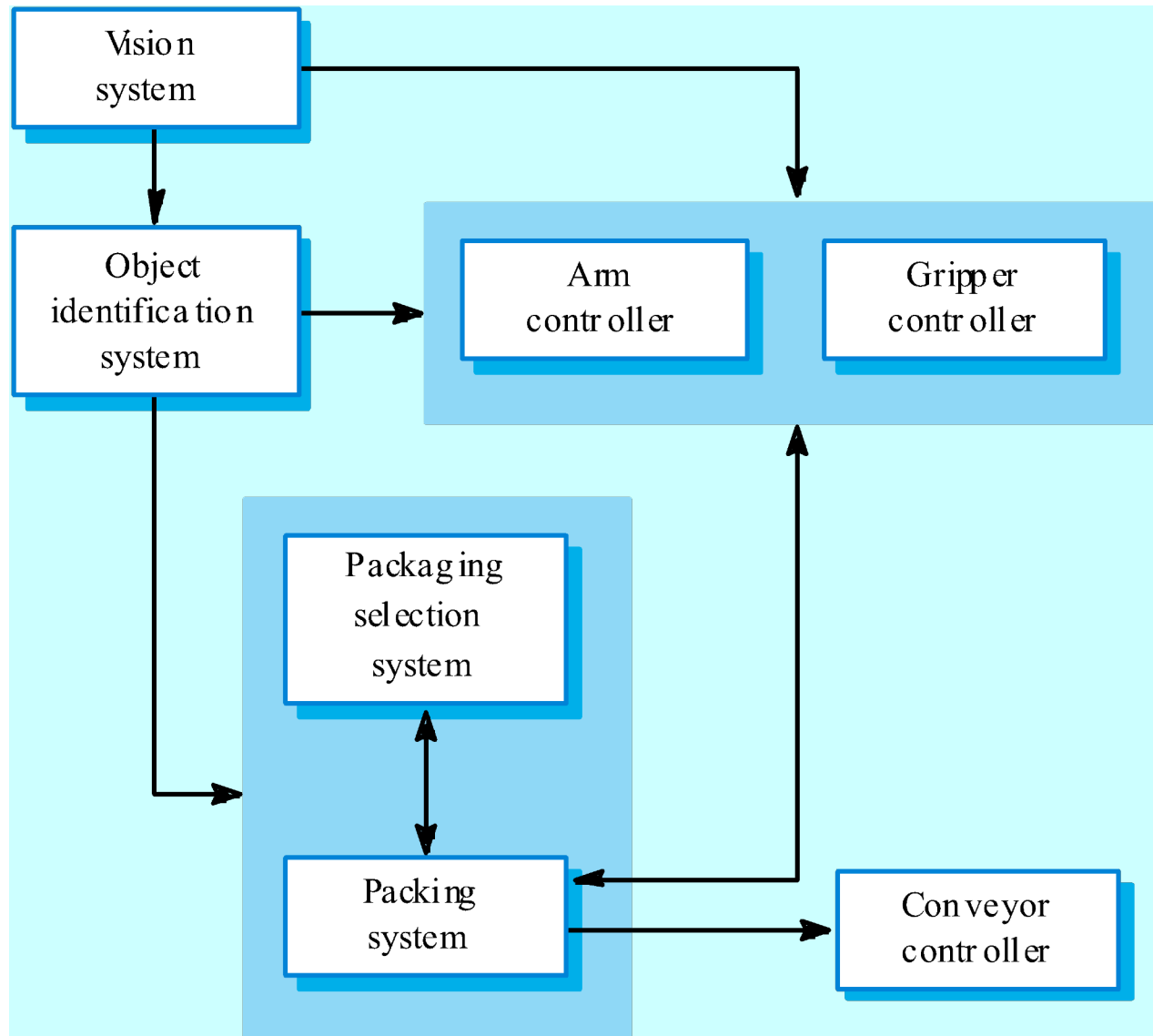
Ex: Core trade-off between availability and security

Availability Decision	Impact on Security
<i>Data replication (redundancy)</i>	<i>Increased risk of data exposure</i>
<i>Fast failover mechanisms</i>	<i>Potential weakening or bypassing of security controls</i>
<i>Distributed architecture</i>	<i>Expanded attack surface</i>
<i>Flexible access policies</i>	<i>Higher risk of unauthorized access</i>
Security Decision	Impact on Availability
<i>Multi-layered security</i>	<i>Increased latency and additional points of failure</i>
<i>Strict access control mechanisms</i>	<i>Potential blockage of legitimate users</i>
<i>Strong authentication requirements</i>	<i>Complications and slower responses in failover processes</i>
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System structuring

- decomposing the system *into interacting sub-systems*.
- normally expressed as a *block diagram* presenting an overview of the system structure.
- showing how sub-systems
 - *share data,*
 - *are distributed and*
 - *interface with each other.*

Packing robot control system



Architectural design decisions

- Is there a generic application architecture that can be used?
- How will the system be distributed?
- What architectural styles are appropriate?
- What approach will be used to structure the system?
- How will the system be decomposed into modules?
- What control strategy should be used?
- How will the architectural design be evaluated?
- How should the architecture be documented?

Architectural models

- *Static structural model* that shows the major system components.
- *Dynamic process model* that shows the process structure of the system.
- *Interface model* that defines sub-system interfaces.
- *Relationships model* such as a data-flow model that shows sub-system relationships.
- *Distribution model* that shows how sub-systems are distributed across computers.

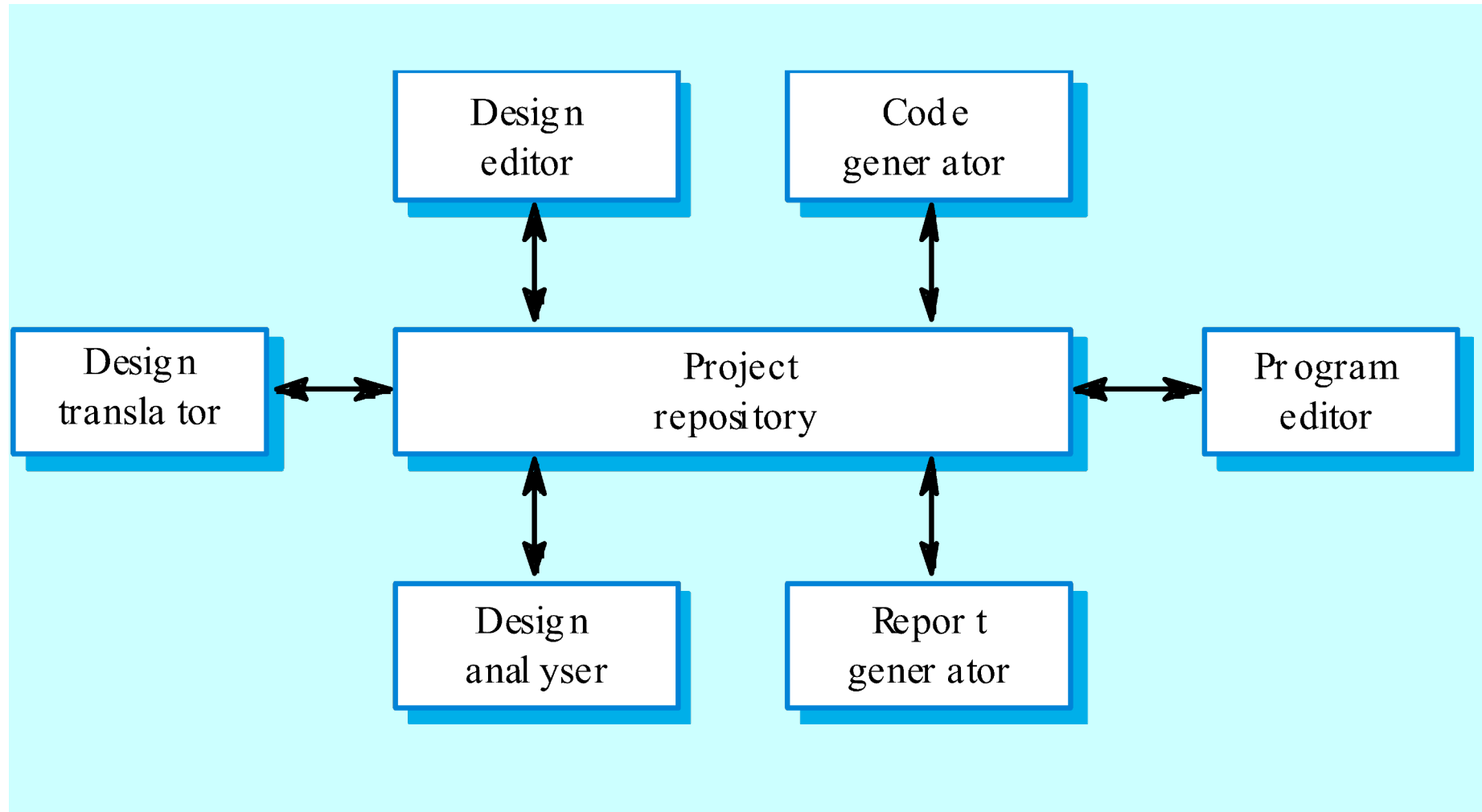
System organisation

- Reflects the basic strategy that is used to structure a system into its subsystems.
- Three organisational styles are widely used:
 - A *shared data repository* style;
 - A *shared services and servers* style;
 - An *abstract machine or layered* style.

The repository model

- Sub-systems exchange data in two ways:
 - *Shared data is held in a central database or repository* and may be accessed by all sub-systems;
 - *Each sub-system maintains its own database and passes data explicitly to other sub-systems.*
- When *large amounts of data* are to be shared, the *repository model* of sharing is most commonly used.

CASE toolset architecture



Repository model characteristics

- *Advantages*

- Efficient way to share large amounts of data;
- Sub-systems need not be concerned with how data is produced
- Centralised management e.g. backup, security, etc.

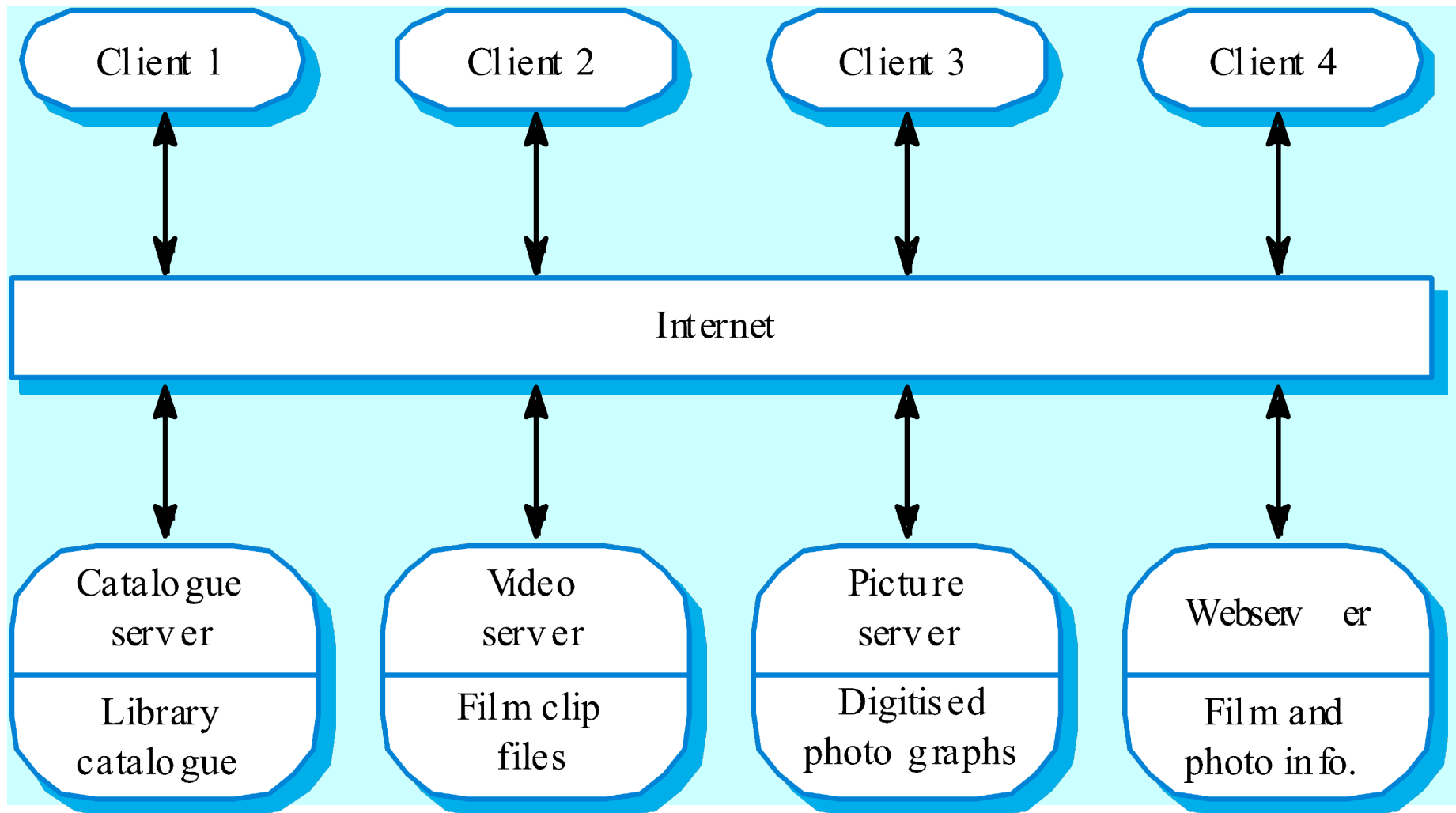
- *Disadvantages*

- Sub-systems must agree on a repository data model. Inevitably a compromise;
- Data evolution is difficult and expensive;
- Difficult to distribute efficiently.

Client-server model

- Distributed system model which shows *how data and processing is distributed across a range of components*.
- *Set of stand-alone servers* which provide specific services such as printing, data management, etc.
- *Set of clients* which request for these services.
- Network which allows clients to access servers.

Film and picture library



Client-server characteristics

- *Advantages*

- Distribution of data is straightforward;
- Makes effective use of networked systems. May require cheaper hardware;
- Easy to add new servers or upgrade existing servers.

- *Disadvantages*

- No shared data model so sub-systems use different data organisation. Data interchange may be inefficient;
- Redundant management in each server;
- No central register of names and services - it may be hard to find out what servers and services are available.

Abstract machine (layered) model

- Used to *model the interfacing of sub-systems*.
- Organises the *system into a set of layers* (or abstract machines) each of which provide *a set of services*.
- Supports the *incremental development* of sub-systems in different layers. When a layer interface changes, only the adjacent layer is affected.
- However, often artificial to structure systems in this way.

Modular decomposition styles

- Styles of *decomposing sub-systems into modules*.
- No rigid distinction between system organisation and modular decomposition.

Sub-systems and modules

- A *sub-system* is a system in its own right whose operation is *independent* of the services provided by other sub-systems.
- A *module* is a system component that provides services to other components but would *not* normally be considered as a *separate* system.

Modular decomposition

- Two modular decomposition models covered
 - An *object model* where the system is decomposed into interacting objects;
 - A pipeline or data-flow model where the system is decomposed into *functional modules* which transform inputs to outputs.
- If possible, decisions about concurrency should be delayed until modules are implemented.

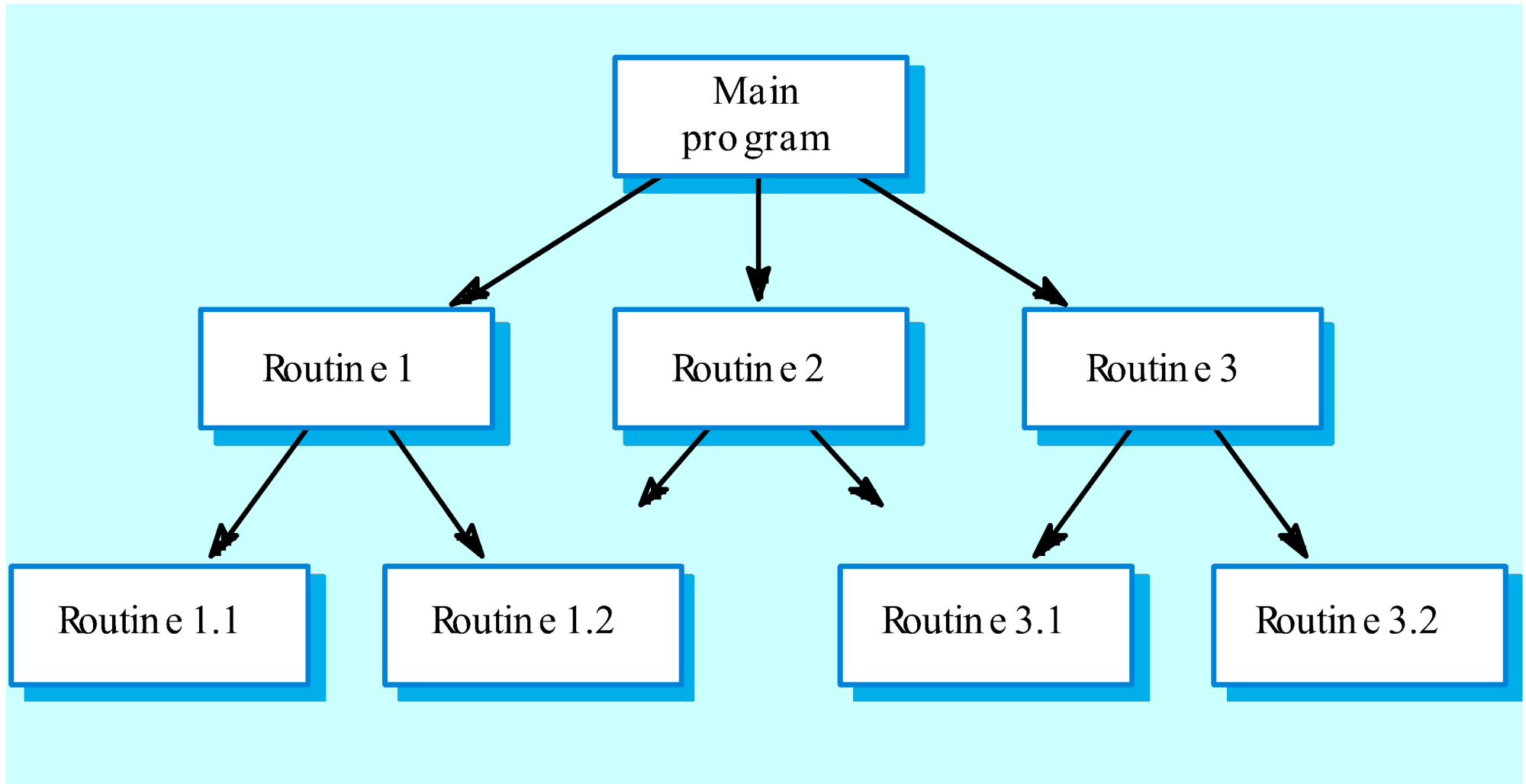
Control styles

- Ways of the control flow between sub-systems. Two ways:
 - *Centralised control*
 - *Event-based control*

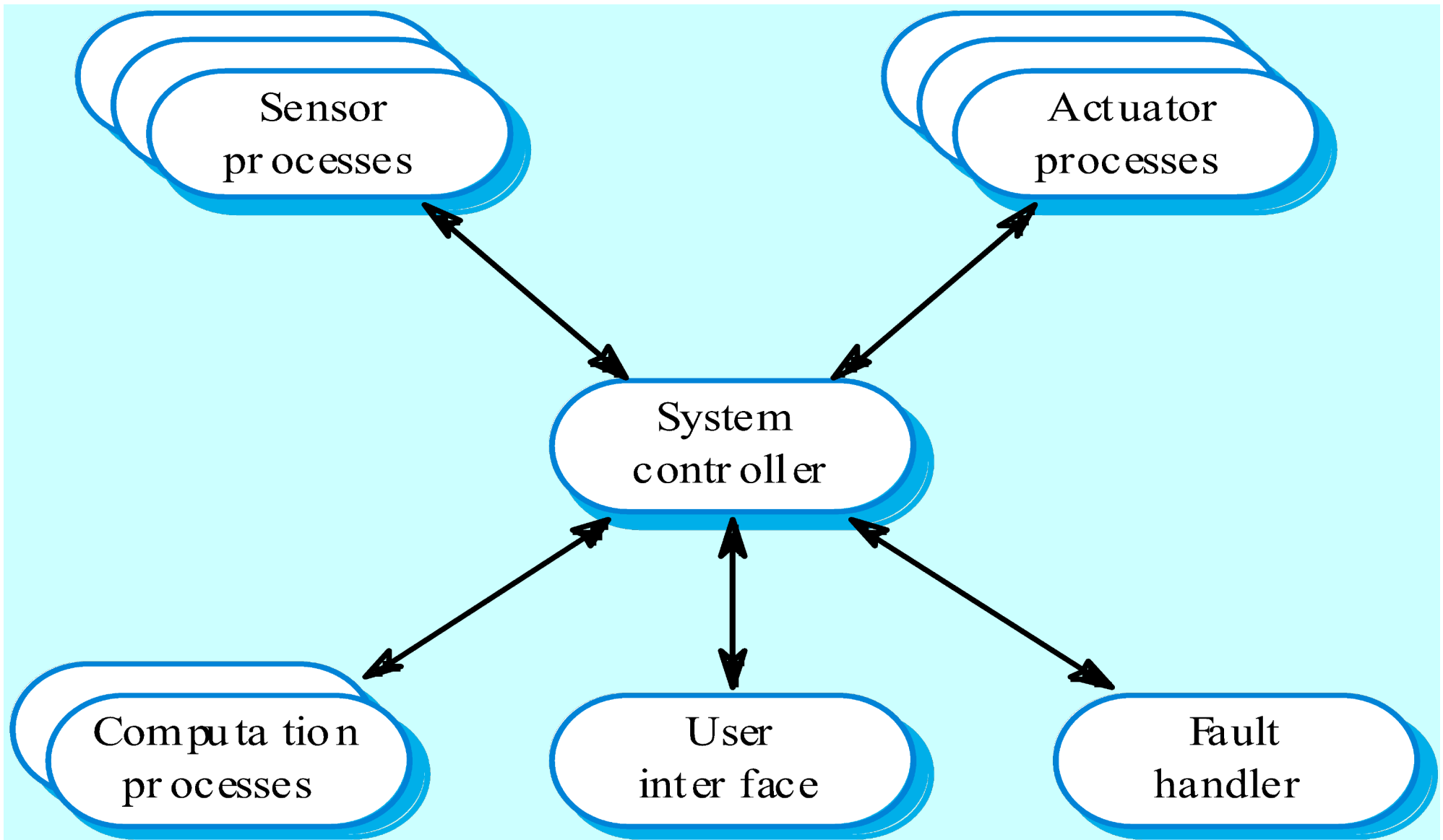
Centralised control

- A control sub-system takes responsibility for managing the execution of other sub-systems.
- *Call-return model*
 - Top-down subroutine model
 - Control starts at the root of a subroutine tree and moves downwards.
 - Applicable to sequential systems.
- *Manager model*
 - Applicable to concurrent systems.
 - One system component coordinates other system processes.

Call-return model



Real-time system control



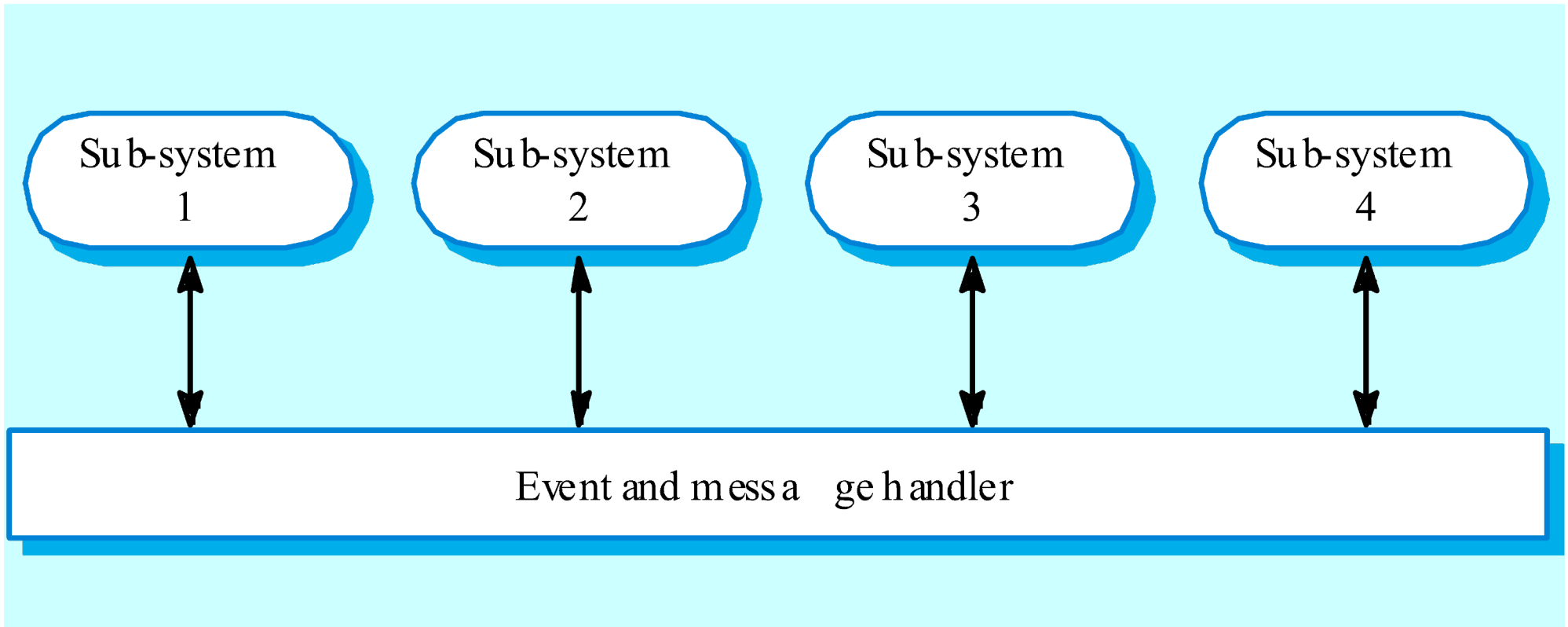
Event-driven systems

- The control of the sub-systems processing the event is driven by externally generated events
- Two primary event-driven models
 - **Broadcast models**. *An event is broadcast to all sub-systems. Any sub-system which can handle the event may do so;*
 - **Interrupt-driven models**. *Used in real-time systems where interrupts are detected by an interrupt handler and passed to some other component for processing.*
- Other event driven models include spreadsheets and production systems.

Broadcast model

- Effective in *integrating sub-systems on different computers* in a network.
- *Sub-systems register* an interest in specific events. When these occur, control is transferred to the sub-system which can handle the event.
- Control policy is not embedded in the event and message handler. Sub-systems decide on events of interest to them.
- However, sub-systems don't know if or when an event will be handled.

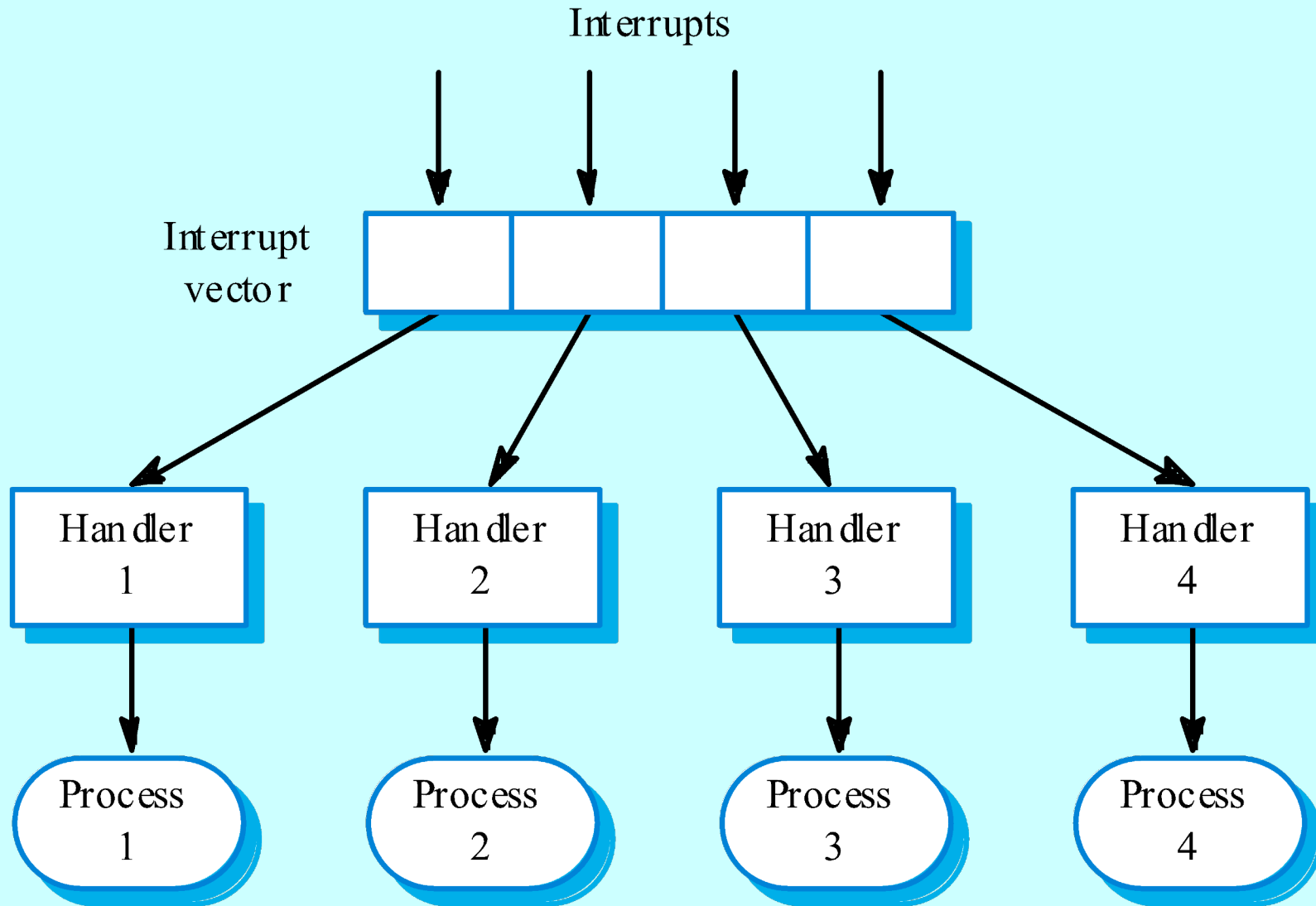
Selective broadcasting



Interrupt-driven systems

- *Used in real-time systems* where *fast response to an event is essential*.
- There are known *interrupt types with a handler* defined for each type.
- Each type is associated with *a memory location and a hardware switch causes transfer to its handler*.
- Allows *fast response but complex to program and difficult to validate*.

Interrupt-driven control



Distributed System Design

Distributed systems

- Virtually all large computer-based systems are now distributed systems.
- Information processing is *distributed over several computers* rather than confined to a single machine.
- *Distributed software engineering* is therefore very important for enterprise computing systems.

Distributed system characteristics

- ***Resource sharing***
 - Sharing of hardware and software resources.
- ***Openness***
 - Use of equipment and software from different vendors.
- ***Concurrency***
 - Concurrent processing to enhance performance.
- ***Scalability***
 - Increased throughput by adding new resources.
- ***Fault tolerance***
 - The ability to continue in operation after a fault has occurred.

Distributed system disadvantages

- *Complexity*
 - Typically, *distributed systems are more complex* than centralised systems.
- *Security*
 - *More susceptible* to external attack.
- *Manageability*
 - *More effort required* for system management.
- *Unpredictability*
 - Unpredictable responses depending on the system organisation and *network load*.

Distributed systems architectures

- *Client-server architectures*
 - *Distributed services*
 - provided by *servers*
 - requested and used by *clients*.
- *Distributed object architectures*
 - *No distinction between clients and servers.*

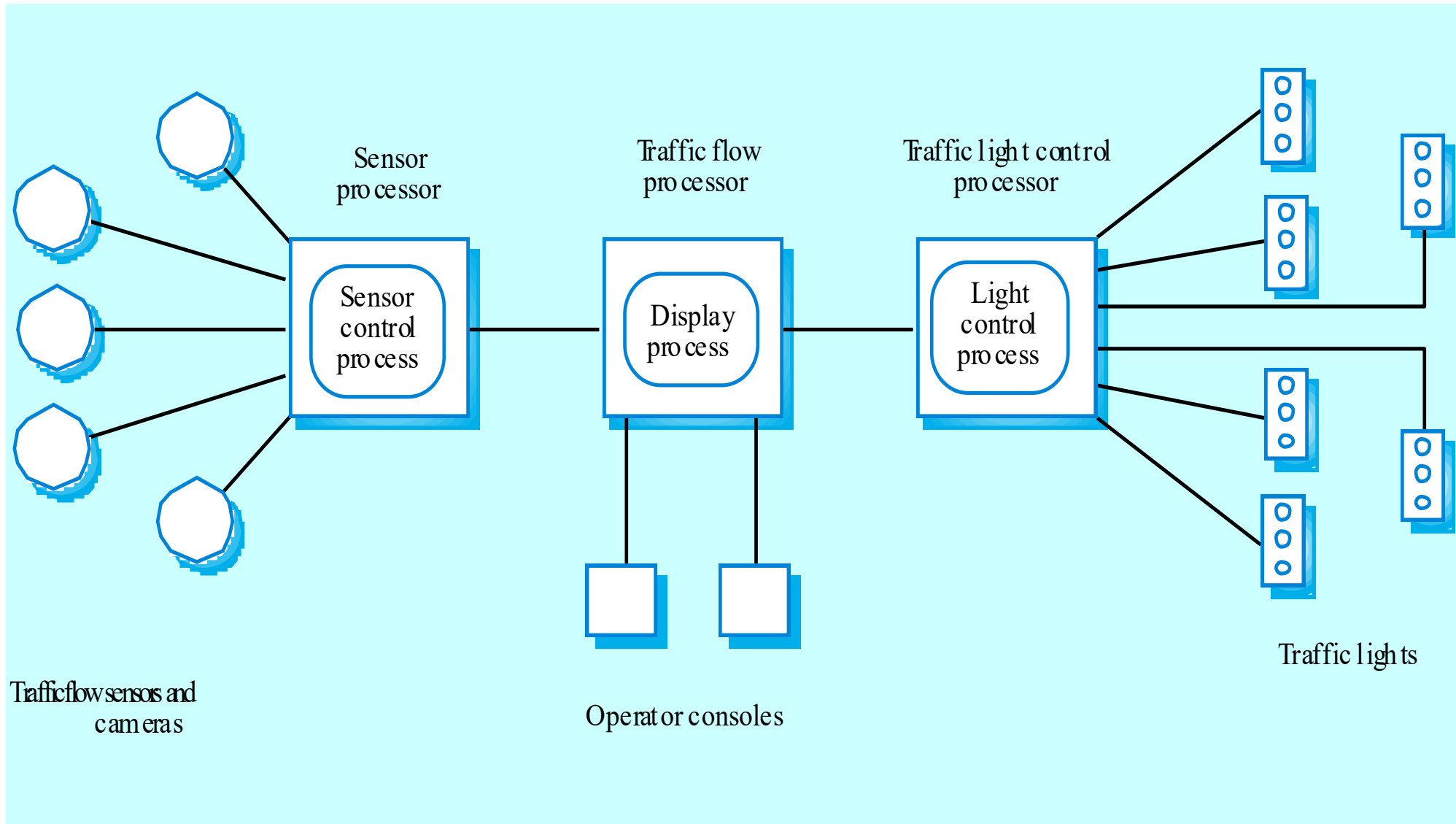
Middleware

- *Software that manages and supports the different components of a distributed system.* In essence, it sits in the *middle* of the system.
- Middleware is usually *off-the-shelf* rather than specially written software.
- Examples
 - Transaction processing monitors;
 - Data converters;
 - Communication controllers.

Multiprocessor architectures

- *Simplest distributed system* model.
- System composed of *multiple processes* which may (but need not) *execute on different processors*.
- Architectural model of many *large real-time systems*.
- *Process to processor distribution*
 - either *pre-ordered*
 - or under the control of a *dispatcher*.

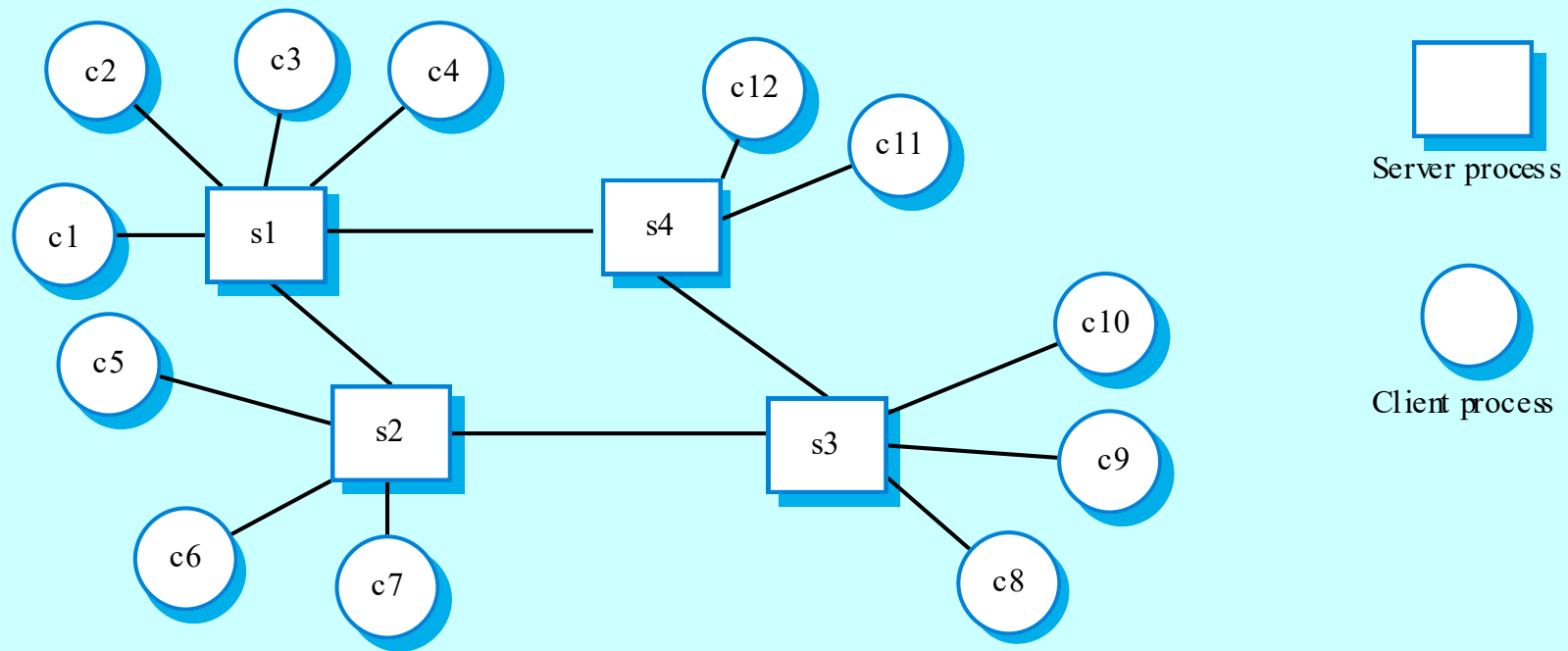
A multiprocessor traffic control system



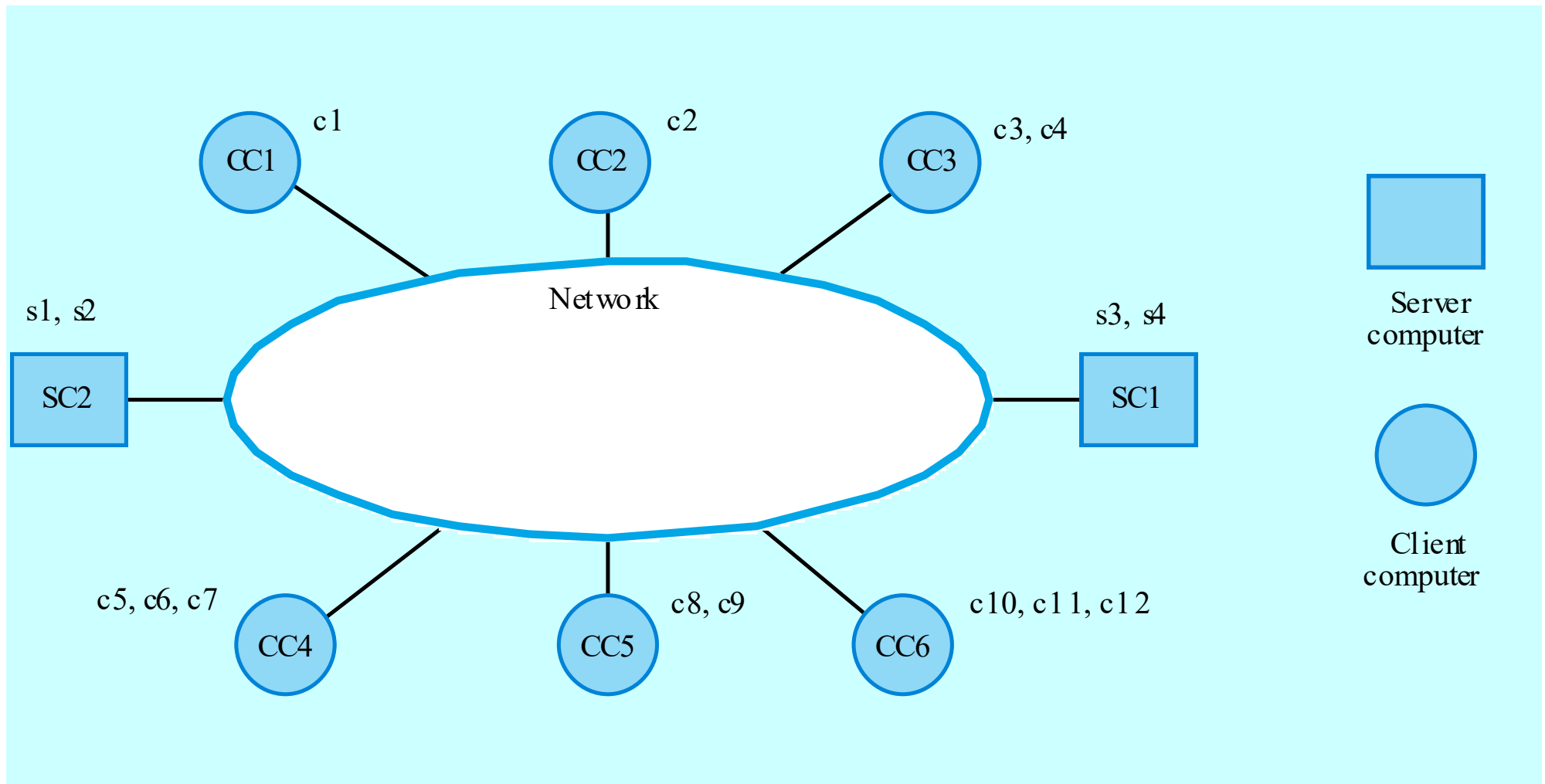
Client-server architectures

- The application is modelled as a set of services that are provided by servers and a set of clients that use these services.
- Clients know of servers but servers need not know of clients.
- Clients and servers are logical processes
- The mapping of processors to processes is not necessarily 1 : 1.

A client-server system



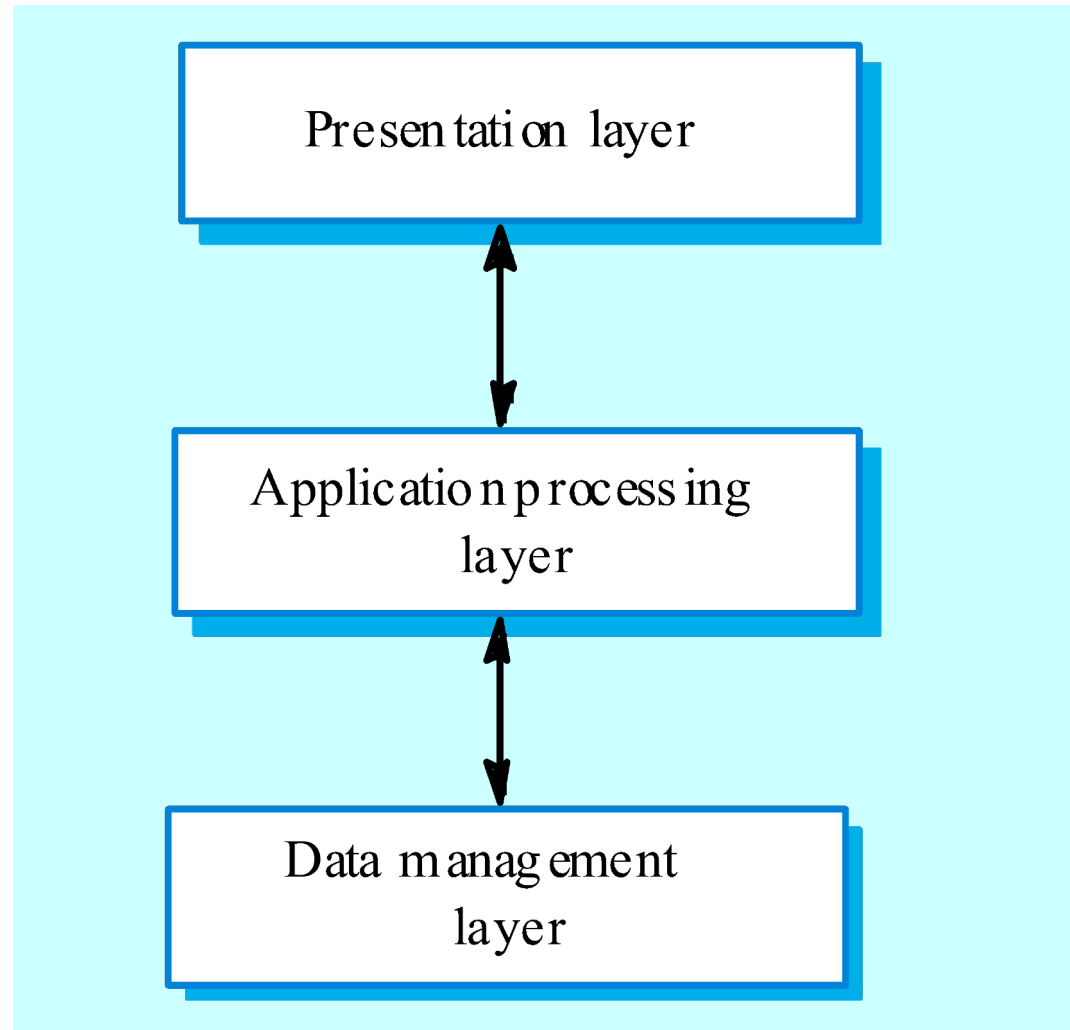
Computers in a C/S network



Layered application architecture

- ***Presentation layer***
 - *presenting the results of a computation* to users and
 - *collecting user inputs.*
- ***Application processing layer***
 - *providing application specific functionality* e.g., in a banking system, banking functions such as open account, close account, etc.
- ***Data management layer***
 - *managing the system databases.*

Application layers



Thin and fat clients

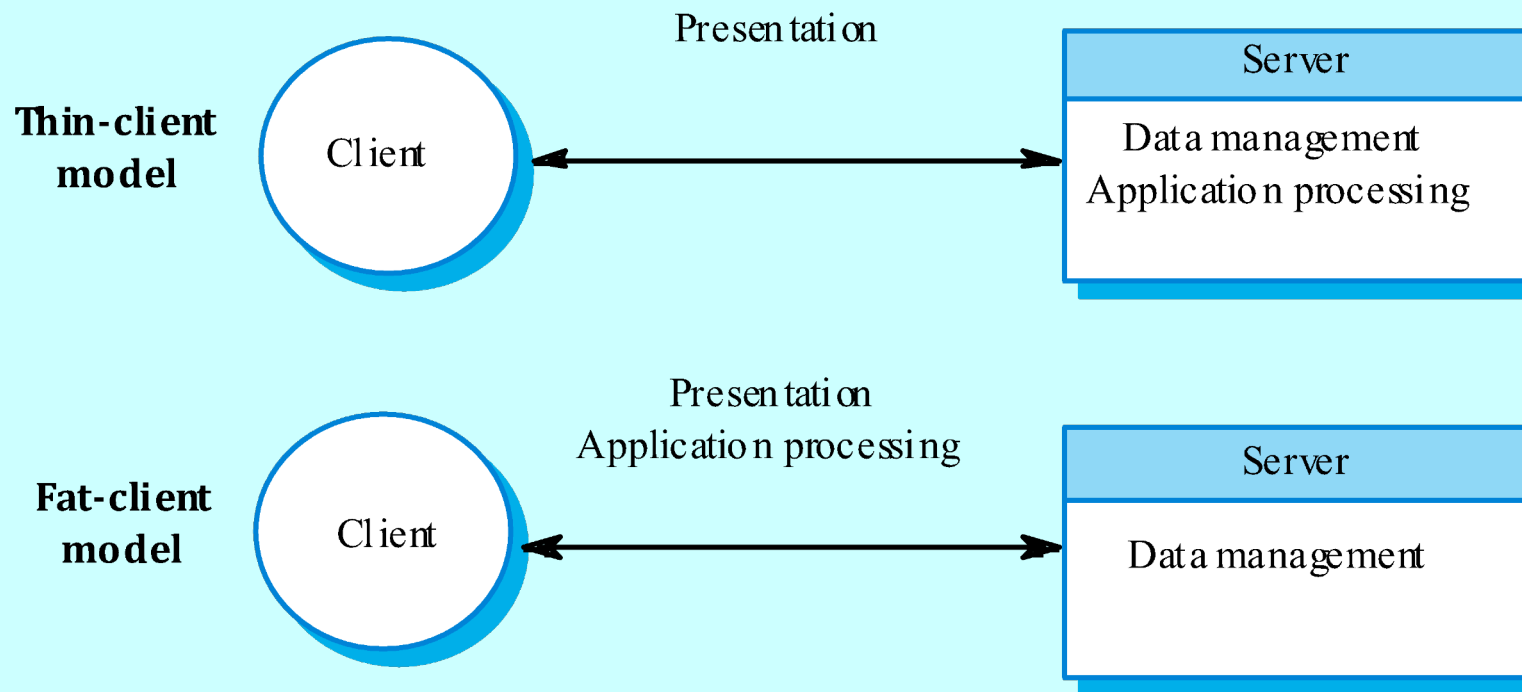
- ***Thin-client model***

- *Application processing and data management is on the server.*
- *Client simply responsible for running presentation software.*

- ***Fat-client model***

- *Server only responsible for data management.*
- *Client realizes application logic and interactions with the system user.*

Thin and fat clients



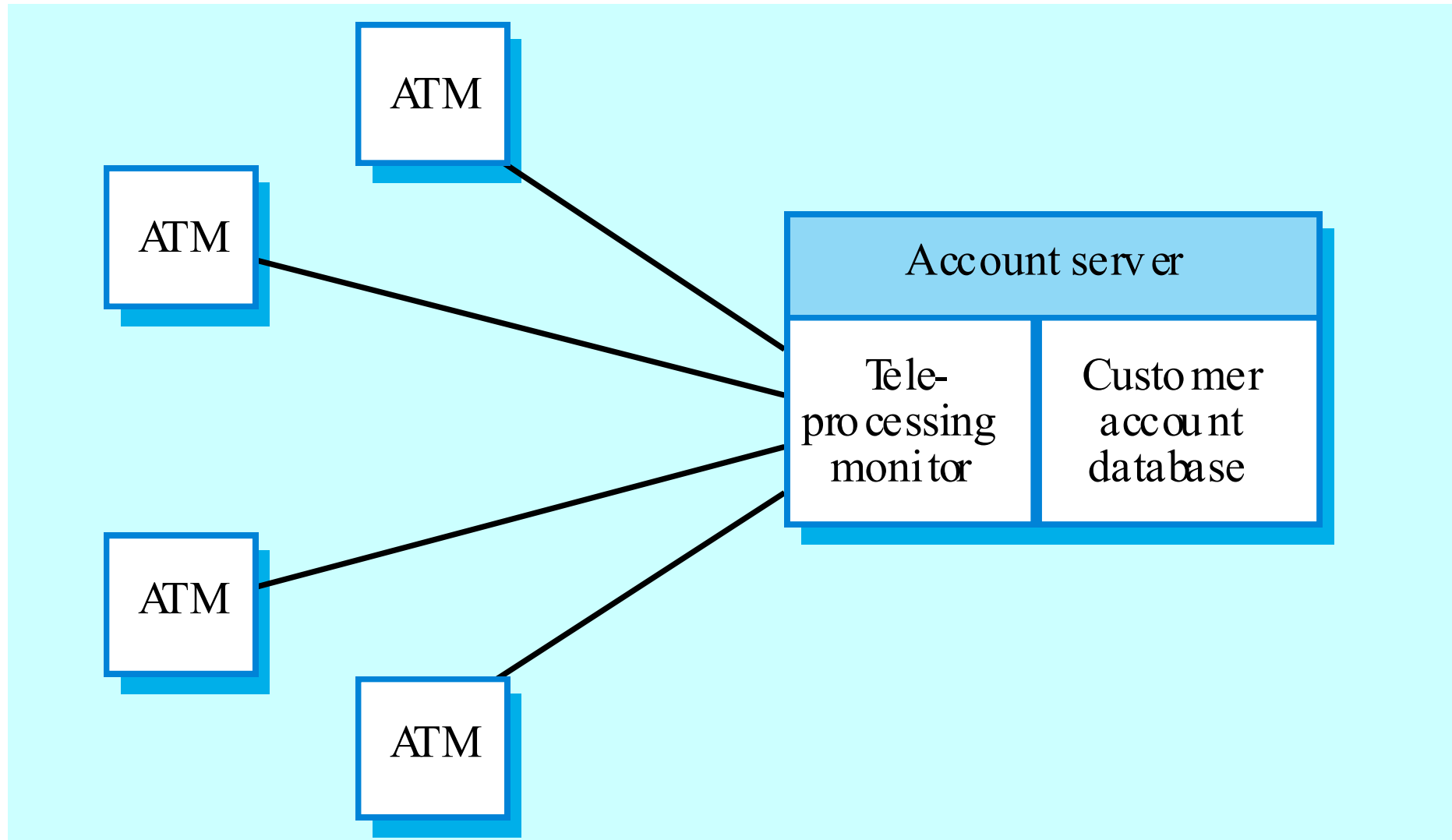
Thin client model

- Used when *legacy (i.e., old) systems* are migrated to client/server architectures.
 - The legacy system acts as a server in its own right with a graphical interface implemented on a client.
- A major disadvantage is that it places a *heavy processing load on both the server and the network.*

Fat client model

- More processing is delegated to the client as the application processing is locally executed.
- Most suitable for new C/S systems where the capabilities of the client system are known in advance.
- More complex than a thin client model especially for management. New versions of the application have to be installed on all clients.

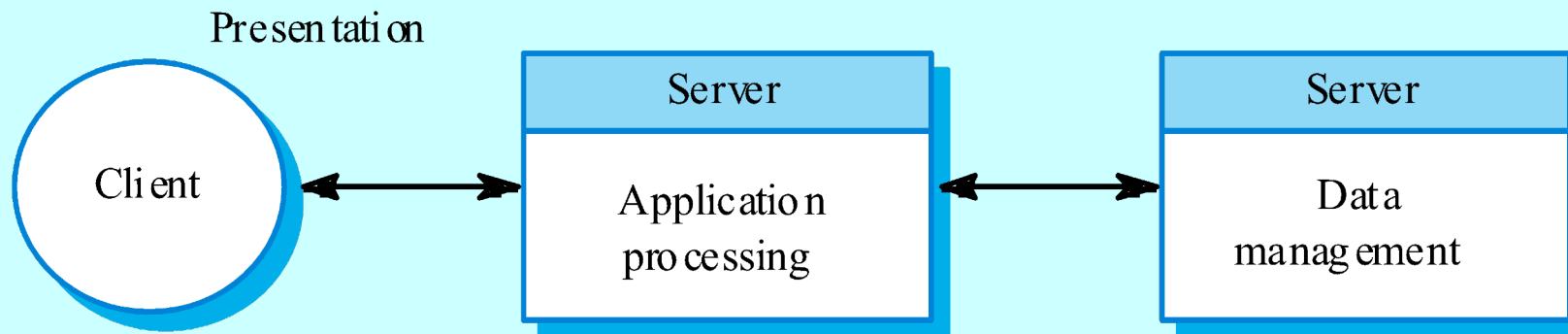
A client-server ATM system



Three-tier architectures

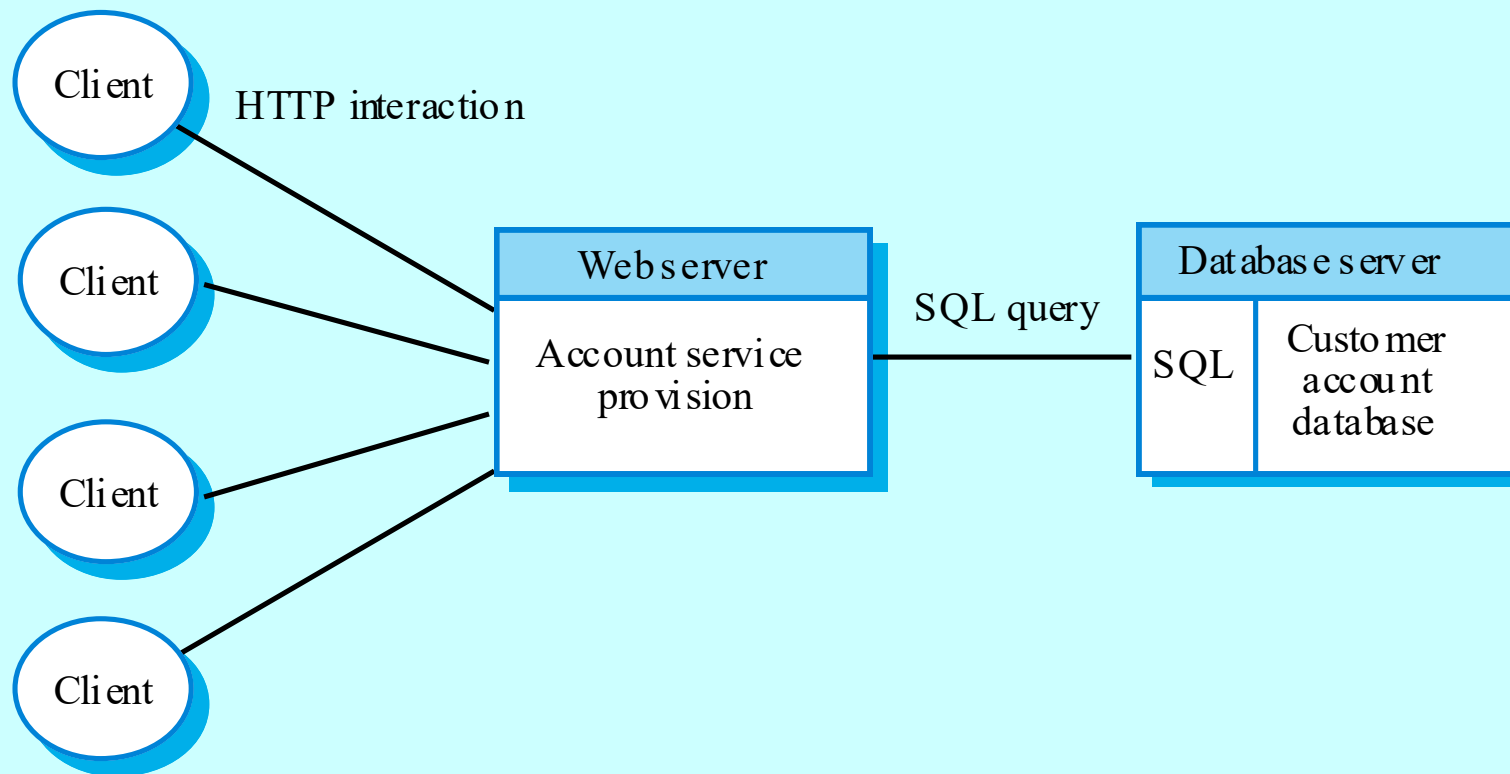
- In a three-tier architecture, each of the application architecture *layers may execute on a separate processor*.
- Allows for *better performance than a thin-client approach* and is simpler to manage than a fat-client approach.
- A *more scalable architecture* - as demands increase, extra servers can be added.

A 3-tier C/S architecture



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An internet banking system



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Use of C/S architectures

Architecture	Applications
Two-tier C/S architecture with thin clients	Legacy system applications where separating application processing and data management is impractical. Computationally-intensive applications such as compilers with little or no data management. Data-intensive applications (browsing and querying) with little or no application processing.
Two-tier C/S architecture with fat clients	Applications where application processing is provided by off-the-shelf software (e.g. Microsoft Excel) on the client. Applications where computationally-intensive processing of data (e.g. data visualisation) is required. Applications with relatively stable end-user functionality used in an environment with well-established system management.
Three-tier or multi-tier C/S architecture	Large scale applications with hundreds or thousands of clients Applications where both the data and the application are volatile. Applications where data from multiple sources are integrated.

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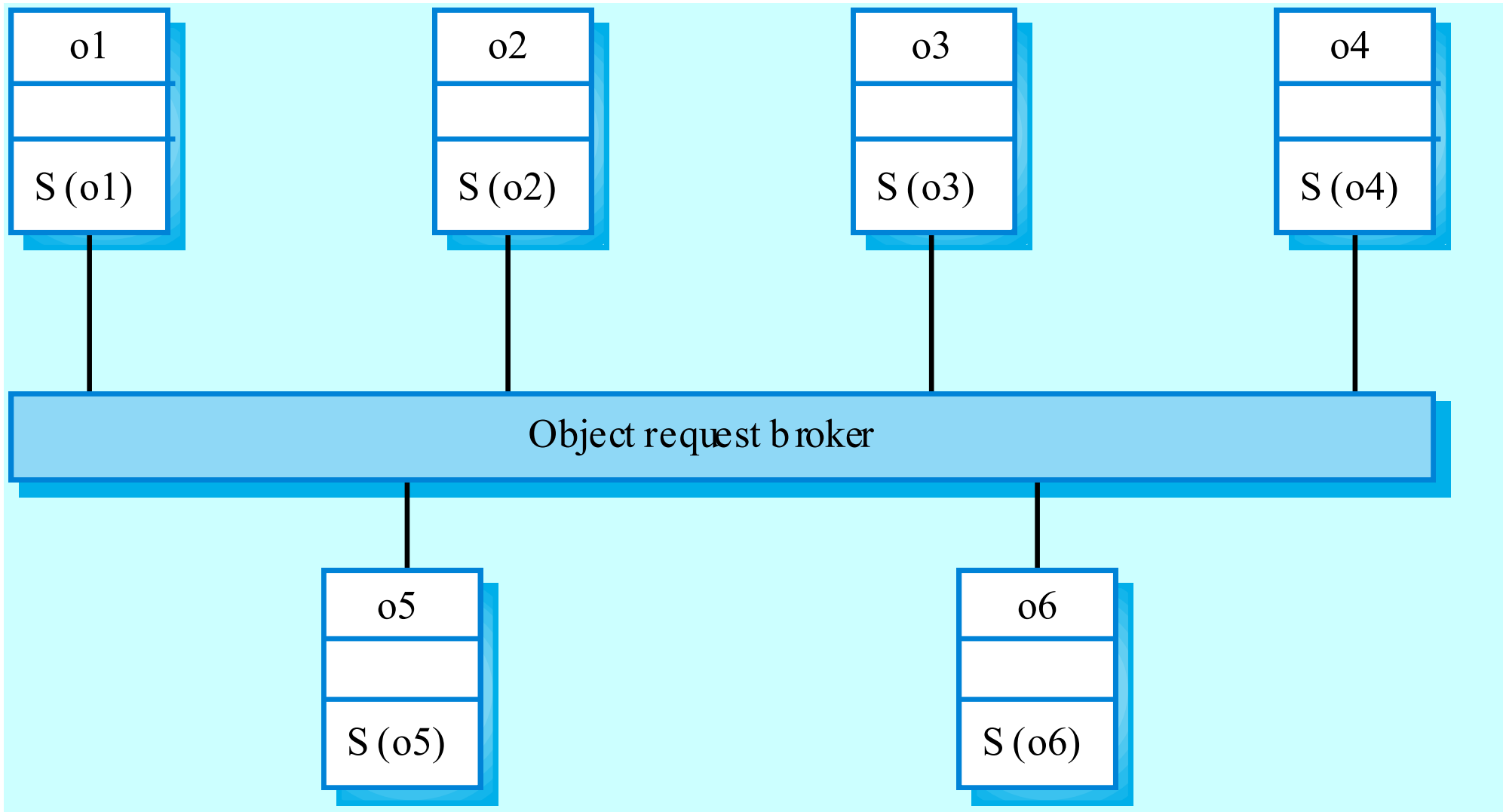
Some remarks for previous slide

- **Thin client:** the reason for the impracticality of separating APL and DML is the missing encapsulation of processing from data management. That is, since they are built together as a single module, to separate them would mean too much communication overhead between APL and DML that this would put a huge load on the network.
- **Fat client:** off-the-shelf processing layers are most likely subject to upgrades (i.e., changes) which is more secure to let have them get automatically upgraded at client rather than at server. Computationally-intensive processing of data requires frequent access to current data which makes current data available at client and its processing be handled at the same site.

Distributed object architectures

- There is ***no distinction*** in a distributed object architectures between clients and servers.
- Each distributable entity is ***an object*** that provides ***services to other objects and receives services from other objects.***
- Object ***communication is through a middleware*** system called an ***object request broker.***
- However, ***distributed object architectures are more complex to design than C/S systems.***

Distributed object architecture



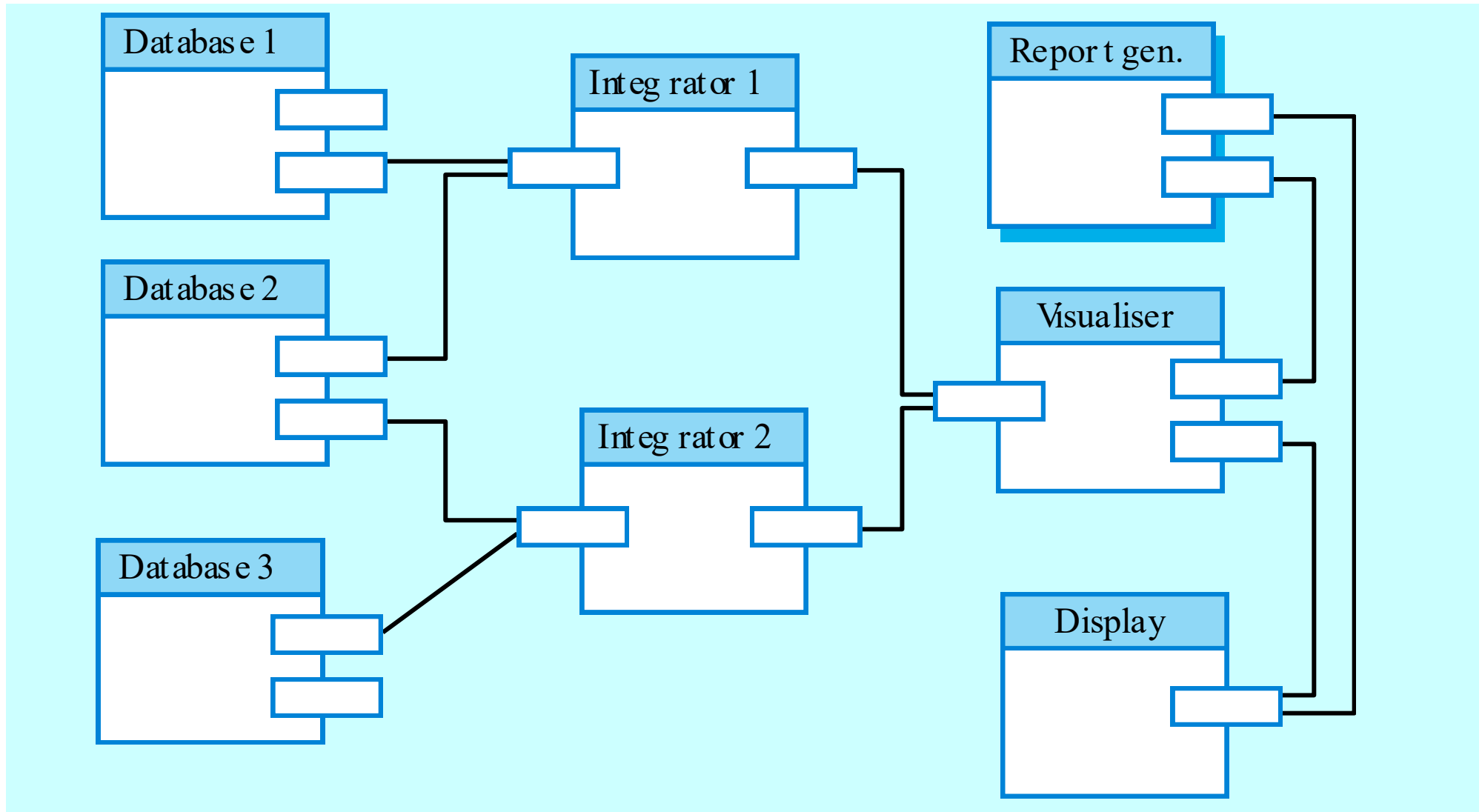
Advantages of distributed object architecture

- It allows the system designer to *delay decisions on where and how services should be provided*.
- It is a very *open system architecture* that allows new resources to be added to it as required.
- The system is *flexible and scaleable*.
- It is *possible to reconfigure the system dynamically* with objects migrating across the network as required.

Uses of distributed object architecture

- As a logical model allowing to *structure and organise the system*. In this case, you think about how to *provide application functionality solely in terms of services and combinations of services*.
- As a *flexible approach to the implementation of client-server systems*. The logical model of the system is a client-server model but both clients and servers are realised as distributed objects communicating through a common communication framework.

A data mining system



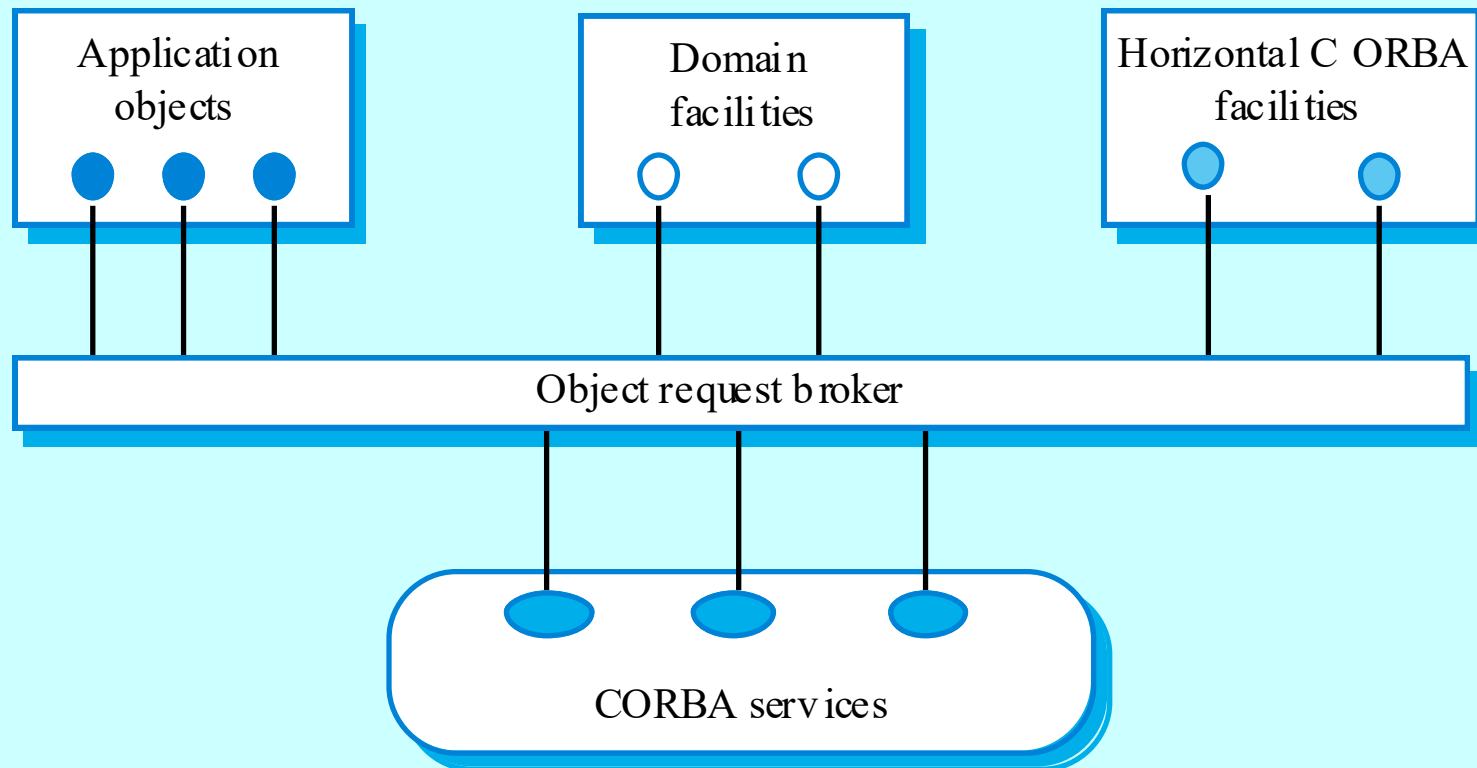
Data mining system

- The logical model of the system is not one of service provision where there are distinguished data management services.
- It allows the number of databases that are accessed to be increased without disrupting the system.
- It allows *new types of relationship* to be mined *by adding new integrator objects*.

CORBA

- CORBA: a *standard for an Object Request Broker*
- *middleware to manage communications between distributed objects.*
- Middleware for distributed computing is required at 2 levels:
 - At the logical communication level, the middleware allows objects on different computers to exchange data and control information;
 - At the component level, the middleware provides a basis for developing compatible components. CORBA component standards have been defined.

CORBA application structure



CORBA Services

- Domain-independent interfaces used by many distributed object programs.
- Example: a service providing for the discovery of other available services; almost always necessary regardless of the application domain.
- **The Naming Service** -- which allows clients to find objects based on names;
- **The Trading Service** -- which allows clients to find objects based on their properties.

CORBA Common Facilities

- **Horizontally-oriented** (i.e., common to many application domain), but unlike object services they are oriented towards end-user applications.
- Example: *Distributed Document Component Facility* (DDCF), a compound document Common Facility based on OpenDoc.
- DDCF allows for presentation and interchange of objects based on a document model, for example, facilitating the linking of a spreadsheet object into a report document.

Peer-to-peer architectures

- Peer to peer (p2p) systems are *decentralised* systems where computations may be carried out by any node in the network.
- The overall system is designed to take advantage of the computational power and storage of a large number of networked computers.
- Most p2p systems have been personal systems but there is increasing business use of this technology.

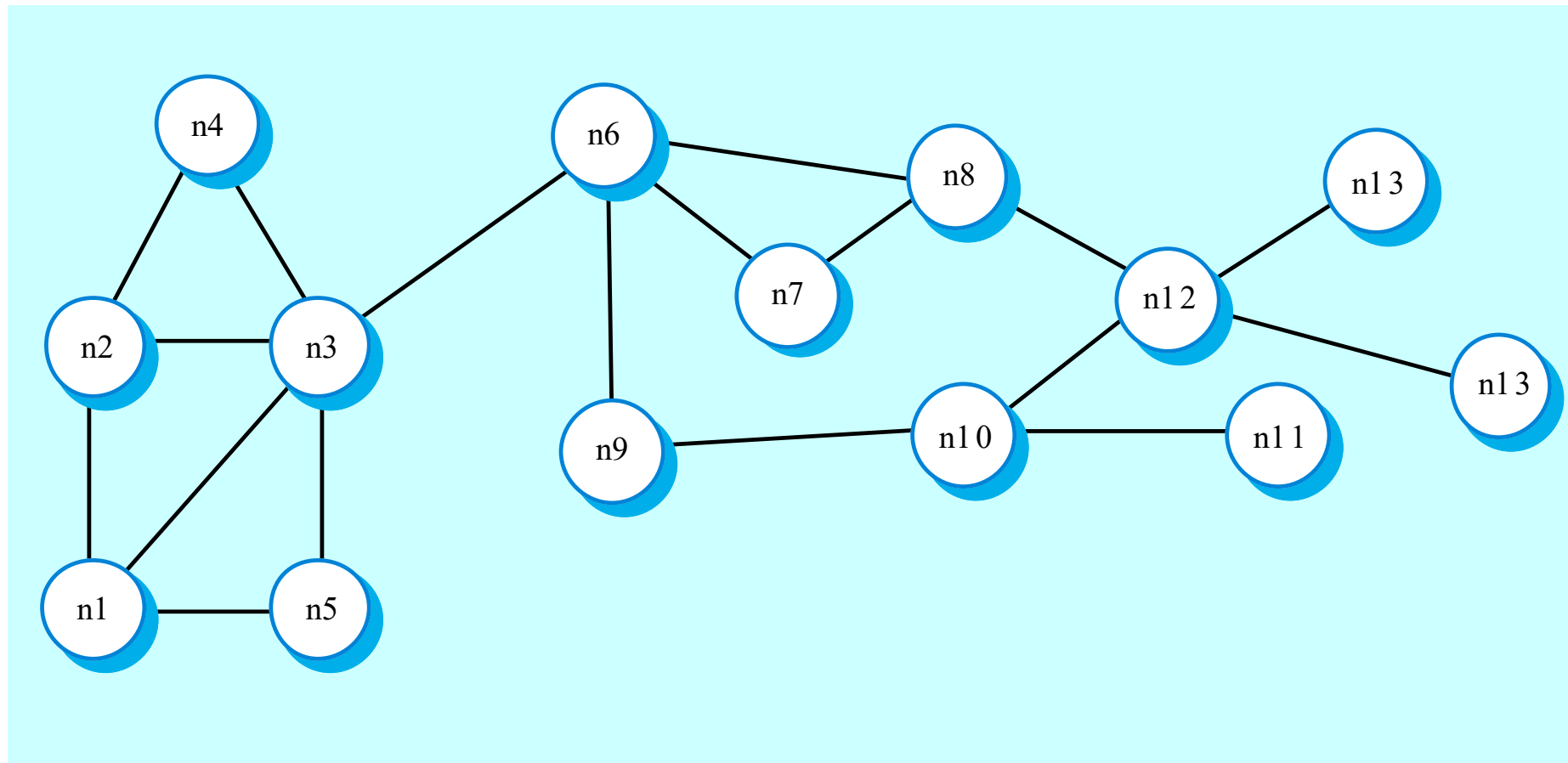
Examples to P2P architectures

- File sharing systems on PCs.
- Instant messaging systems such as ICQ to establish a direct communication between users.

P2p architectural models

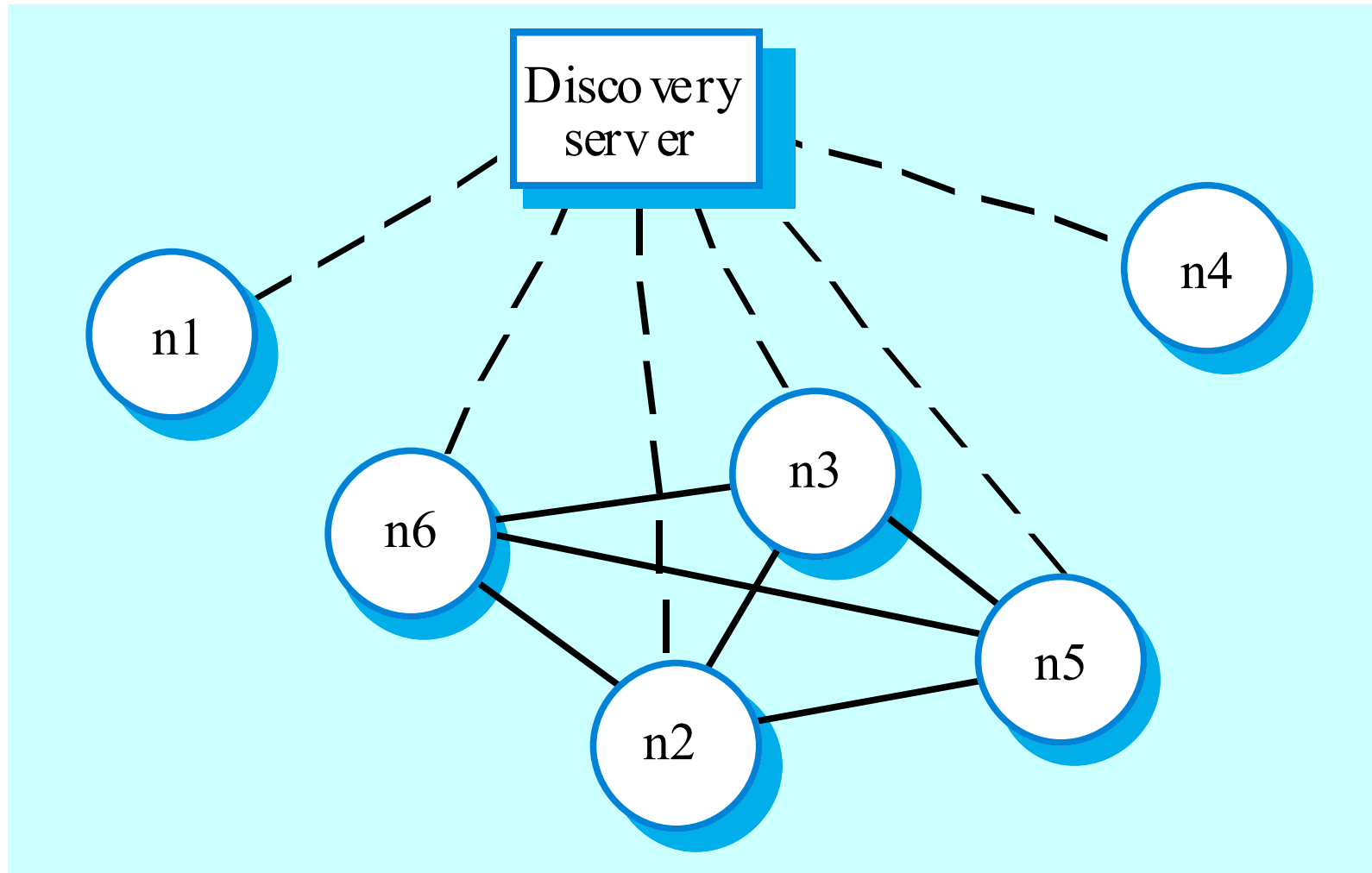
- The *logical network* architecture
 - *Decentralised* architectures;
 - *Semi-centralised* architectures.
- *Application* architecture
 - The generic organisation of components making up a p2p application.

Decentralised p2p architecture



Received from [1]

Semi-centralised p2p architecture



References

[1] Software Engineering, Ian Sommerville, 8th edition, Addison-Wesley, 2007